

Care in Context: Men's Unpaid Work in 20 Countries, 1965–2003

Jennifer L. Hook

Pennsylvania State University

By situating men within the country and time period in which they live, social scientists are better able to understand men's housework and child care behaviors. The author proposes that national context, conceptualized here as women's employment practices and policies, influences men's unpaid work behaviors by shaping the benefits of specialization, the terms of bargaining, and the ease of adhering to gender ideologies and norms. Using 44 time-use surveys from 20 countries (spanning 1965 to 2003) combined with original national-level data, the author utilizes multilevel models to test hypotheses regarding the relationship between national context and men's unpaid work behaviors. She finds that men's unpaid work time increases with national levels of women's employment. Furthermore, the effect of children on men's unpaid work time depends on women's national employment hours, the length of available parental leave, and men's eligibility to take parental leave, which indicates that particular public policies affect men in specific household situations. The analyses document the importance of national context for the unpaid work behaviors of all men, especially fathers, and shift the research focus from the attributes of individual men to the structures that hinder and facilitate men's unpaid work.

Men's involvement in family life has varied historically with the mode of economic production. During the industrial revolution

Direct correspondence to Jennifer Hook, Department of Sociology, The Pennsylvania State University, 211 Oswald Tower, University Park, PA 16802-6207 (jenhook@pop.psu.edu). The author thanks Becky Pettit, Julie Brines, Edgar Kiser, Barbara Reskin, Stew Tolnay, Suzanne Bianchi, Hege Kitterød, Lynn Prince Cooke, and the *ASR* editor Jerry A. Jacobs and *ASR* reviewers for their comments and assistance. Funded in part by a National Science Foundation Graduate Research Fellowship, a Fulbright Fellowship, the NICHD/NIH Grant T32 HD007543, the Center for Studies in Demography and Ecology, and the University of Washington. Earlier versions of this work were presented at the 2004 annual meeting of the Population Association of America, Boston, and the 2004 annual meeting of the American Sociological Association, San Francisco. This paper was selected for the ASA Section on the Sociology of the Family 2005 Outstanding Graduate Student Paper Award, and the ASA Section on the Sociology of Sex and Gender 2005 Sally Hacker Graduate Student Paper Award.

men left the home to pursue waged work, altering men's role in daily family life (Coltrane and Galt 2000; Rotundo 1985; Stearns 1991). A male breadwinner–female caregiver division of labor replaced family-based production, and was accompanied by new state policies and norms about the gendered division of labor (Cancian and Oliker 2000; Goldin 1990). During the mid-20th century, economic change spurred a second transformation in advanced industrialized societies as married women increasingly left the home to pursue waged work. In response, new family models that reflect dual-earner families are emerging (Boje and Leira 2000; Hobson and Morgan 2002), altering men's family roles again and weakening the policies, and norms that support male breadwinner–female caregiver families (Hearn et al. 2002).

In this second transformation, the extent of change in men's family time is under debate. Although men's unpaid work time has increased, it has not compensated for women's decline nor reached parity with women's time (Bianchi et al. 2000; Gershuny 2000; Gershuny, Godwin, and

Jones 1994). Findings of enduring inequality in dual-earner families have created a perception of a "stalled revolution" (Hochschild 1989). Gershuny (2000), in contrast, argued against this conclusion, contending that men's and women's unpaid work time is slowly converging, in part because of increases in men's housework and child care time caused by men's lagged adjustments to their wives' increased employment.

In an effort to understand men's housework, researchers have tested a number of individual- and household-level hypotheses in single-country analyses, but without gaining substantial leverage on men's unpaid work time. The relative resources, gender ideology, "doing gender," and time constraints perspectives have all received partial support, but tend to explain only a small portion of variance in men's unpaid work time (e.g., Bianchi et al. 2000). The general conclusion is that researchers "are just beginning to understand why men do so little" (Coltrane 2000:1226 in a decade review).

In response to Esping-Andersen's (1990, 1999) welfare state typology, a new line of institutional research emerged in the 1990s, focusing on the relationship between the welfare state and the gendered division of labor (Daly 1994; Gornick and Meyers 2003; Jacobs and Gerson 2004; Lewis 1992; Orloff 1993; Sainsbury 1994, 1996). Researchers generally expect the most egalitarian divisions of household labor in the social democratic countries of Scandinavia and the least egalitarian divisions in the conservative-corporatist countries of Western and Southern Europe (Bryson, Bittman, and Donath 1994; Kalleberg and Rosenfeld 1990; Pacholok and Gauthier 2004). Two recent studies have found that the salience of relative resources, gender ideology, and time constraints vary across regime types (Fuwa 2004; Geist 2005). Several researchers, however, have observed little cross-national variation comparing social democratic countries to liberal, English-speaking countries, concluding that national context is largely inconsequential (Baxter 1997; Gershuny and Sullivan 2003).

Previous studies, however, have been limited by the conception of national context and by the choice of national-level data. Although welfare state typologies or indices provide important information about general national orientations, they conflate women's labor force

practices and an array of public policies. Various practices and policies may have contradictory impacts upon the division of household labor, which may explain why researchers have observed similar shares in very different national contexts.

At the individual level, researchers have been limited by the availability of data and have utilized the 1994 International Social Survey Programme (ISSP) (Batalova and Cohen 2002; Breen and Cooke 2005; Fuwa 2004; Geist 2005; Iversen and Rosenbluth 2006). Research with this data has made important contributions, but it is limited by three factors. First, researchers have been able to analyze only men's relative share of household labor, which conflates men's and women's time. Share may also obscure contextual factors that influence both men's and women's time in the same direction. Second, the ISSP gathers information only on a fraction of household labor (laundry, small repairs, grocery shopping, caring for the sick, and deciding what is for dinner), missing the bulk of household labor including cooking, cleaning, and child care. A narrow measure risks overestimating cross-national difference because there is more variation across nations in subtypes of unpaid work than there is in the total. Third, the ISSP asks respondents to identify who usually does each household task on a five-point scale (always the woman, usually the woman, about equal, usually the man, always the man). Unfortunately the imprecise nature of the scale (the category "usually" could reasonably represent between 55 and 95 percent) is problematic for researchers making comparisons across countries because of the role that cross-national differences in social desirability may play in self-reports.

In this article, I propose an integrative theoretical framework that combines the mechanisms from individual- and household-level theories of the division of household labor with insights from the burgeoning literature on gender and welfare states. Combining 44 time-use surveys spanning 1965 to 2003 from 20 countries with original national-level data on policies and employment practices, I use multilevel models to examine the unpaid work behaviors of men in varying circumstances (for example, married men and fathers) embedded in different national contexts. My methodological approach makes several advances over previous

research. First, I analyze time diaries, which allows me specifically to address *men's* time spent on an *inclusive* measure of household labor. It also enables me to specify if context affects all men, or just married men. Second, I unpack national-level typologies, disentangling the effects of various policies and employment practices on men's time. Third, I examine what factors account for change over time in a multi-level framework, expanding the line of inquiry before and after the 1990s.

THEORETICAL FRAMEWORK

At the individual level, economists and sociologists have advanced a number of theories to account for men's unpaid work behaviors. From a specialization perspective, individuals allocate time to unpaid work in a manner that maximizes household, not individual, utility (Becker [1981] 1991). There have been a number of challenges to the model, with research suggesting that individuals do not always act in the household's interest (Bergmann 1995; Folbre 1986; Lundberg, Pollack, and Wales 1997). Across countries, however, men are more specialized in the market, and women are more specialized in the home. Gender scholars have identified several ways in which nations support this specialization through social policies (Daly 2000; Lewis 1993; Sainsbury 1996). Context affects gender specialization if a practice or policy increases or decreases the economic benefit to households for adopting a male breadwinner-female caregiver family model.

Researchers have aligned the specialization model with the time constraints perspective because both assume that individuals rationally allocate time in the household's interest. The time constraints perspective proposes that individuals pragmatically respond to demands to do housework given their availability to respond, and that partners distribute workloads toward equilibrium (Blood and Wolfe 1960; Coverman 1985; Hook 2004). Research generally finds support for this approach—spousal work hours and the presence of children increase respondents' household labor time, and respondents' work hours decrease their household labor time. Time constraints, however, do not affect men and women equally—women's time is more responsive to children than is men's (Bianchi et al. 2000; Shelton 1992). One source of these

“gendered time constraints” may be context. Similar to specialization, context influences the operation of time constraints if a practice or policy differentially increases or decreases the demand on or availability of men and women.

Social exchange and economic bargaining models abandon the assumption of a single household utility, instead assuming that spouses have potentially conflicting interests and that they bargain over the distribution of time and resources within the marriage (Blood and Wolfe 1960; Heer 1963; Manser and Brown 1980; McElroy and Horney 1981). As applied to housework, the models suggest that the partner with greater resources (economic advantage within and better alternatives to the relationship) uses these resources to negotiate out of housework (England and Farkas 1986). Studies find partial support for bargaining—relative income matters somewhat, except in some counter-normative situations (Bittman et al. 2003; Brines 1993; Greenstein 2000). Recent work has considered how extra-household factors, such as broader economic conditions and social policy, influence bargaining (Breen and Cooke 2005; Fuwa 2004; Iversen and Rosenbluth 2006; Lundberg and Pollak 1996; McElroy 1990). From these perspectives, contextual factors that systematically affect the level or value of resources that men and women possess, or their relative alternatives to a marriage, are implicated in the division of household labor.

The gender ideology/socialization perspective has placed more emphasis on how gender influences the division of labor than have the economic-based perspectives. The gender ideology perspective suggests that men and women who hold more egalitarian gender attitudes (generally produced by childhood socialization) will more equally distribute household labor. Studies of the gender ideology hypothesis find partial support—socialization and attitudes are relevant but not deterministic (Cunningham 2001)—and are more salient for women than for men (Bianchi et al. 2000). Several studies, however, show that context (for example, employment situation) can supersede gender ideology and is key to a variety of caretaking and household behaviors (Gerson 1993, 1997; Gerstel and Gallagher 1994; Haas 1992; Risman 1998). Social context influences whether attitudes will result in behavior (Howard and Hollander 1997); and when attitudes and behaviors conflict, one

way that individuals reduce inconsistency is by changing attitudes (Festinger 1957). Summarizing men's paid and unpaid work trajectories, Gerson (1993:105) concludes that "changes in opportunities and options preceded and prompted the ensuing changes in behavior and desire." This suggests that contextual factors that make it easier or harder to act in accordance with attitudes about housework will influence the relationship between attitudes and behavior, and will even cause attitude change.

The gender ideology/socialization perspective is a leading account of change over time in household labor. Gershuny and colleagues (1994) propose a "lagged adaptation," arguing that the gendered division of labor changes across generations as women's increased employment encourages more egalitarian childhood socialization, thus eventually creating adults who are more willing to have an egalitarian household division of labor. Gershuny (2000) predicts convergence in men and women's time as childhood socialization continues to change. In a cross-national investigation of the lagged adaptation hypothesis, Windebank (2001) finds that despite French women's longer history of extensive labor force participation, British dual-earner households are slightly more egalitarian in the division of household labor than are similar French households. Windebank suggests that because the French government reduces the demand for unpaid work created by women's employment through more generous child care than what Britain provides, women's employment has a smaller effect on French men than on British men. She concludes that it is not ideology, but a lack of alternatives that force British men into unpaid work. These findings suggest that the effect of women's employment on men's unpaid work time is moderated by state policies.

A related gender perspective, "doing gender," conceptualizes household work as a site for women and men to display and reproduce gender (Berk 1985; West and Zimmerman 1987). The most common hypothesis derived from this theory is that in counter-normative situations (for example, the wife is the primary breadwinner), women will do gender by doing more housework and men will do gender by doing less housework than individuals in normative situations. Doing gender has been used to explain findings contrary to economic-based hypothe-

ses, such as why economically dependent men do less housework than other men, and economically independent women do more housework than other women (Bittman et al. 2003; Brines 1994). From a doing gender perspective, national context influences the normative expectations of what it means to be a man or woman and the resources available to enact these "essential natures."

Research on the division of household labor is primarily focused on couples, but the gender perspectives have been used to understand the behaviors of single men (Natalier 2003). Research including single men finds that they do approximately the same amount of total housework as cohabiting and married men, but they do more female-typed housework (Gupta 1999; South and Spitze 1994). This suggests that understanding men's behavior prior to coupling is important because it may serve as a reference point for future behavior (Natalier 2003; South and Spitze 1994). From the gender perspective, context should influence single men in a similar way to how it influences married men, by shaping gender ideologies and norms.

In contrast, economic perspectives are helpful for understanding the housework behaviors of single men only if we assume that their current housework behaviors are influenced by their expectations for future relationships. From a specialization perspective, men might not invest in female-typed household skills because they do not expect to perform this work upon marriage. This is contrary to evidence that men do more female-typed work prior to marriage and more male-typed work after marriage. From a bargaining perspective, single men might do housework to improve their chances on the marriage market.

An institutional focus suggests that individual-level theories of unpaid work behaviors are partial because national context affects men and women's time-allocation decisions by influencing the benefits of specialization, the terms of bargaining, and the ease or difficulty of adhering to gender ideologies or norms. Contextual factors can influence men's actions directly, as well as indirectly, through their influence on women's actions. In this article, I examine the influence of two dimensions of national context—women's employment practices and state policy—on men's unpaid work behaviors.

MARRIED WOMEN'S EMPLOYMENT PRACTICES

The stalled revolution literature suggests that decreases in gender specialization in paid work have not caused decreases in specialization in unpaid work. From a bargaining perspective, however, we can expect married women's employment practices to influence the unpaid work behaviors of married men. Where women's labor force opportunities are greater, women are in a better bargaining position because their resources and alternatives are higher. Women's employment practices are important even for husbands of non-employed women because they influence the perceived alternatives to marriage (Iversen and Rosenbluth 2006).

From a gender perspective, women's employment practices should influence the unpaid work time of all men, including single men. Where married women's employment is more common, men married to employed women may find opting out of unpaid work more difficult despite holding traditional gender ideology (Gerson 1993; Presser 1989, 1994). Men are likely to adjust their ideology to fit with their new behaviors (Wilkie 1993). Because men's reference group for appropriate housework behaviors is other men (Major 1993), all men, including single men, should be less likely to act on traditional ideologies in contexts where women's employment is more common. In essence, as women's labor force participation affects more men, the bar is set higher when men make social comparisons, creating an across-the-board change in how men "do gender."

Women's labor force opportunities and practices are linked to the relative division of household labor. Recent studies using the 1994 ISSP find that the household division of labor is more egalitarian in countries with women-friendly labor markets and large public sectors (Iversen and Rosenbluth 2006), and in countries with a higher ranking on an index of women's economic and political power (Batalova and Cohen 2002). There is inconsistency in findings regarding the relationship between national context and the individual-level effect of women's employment on the division of household labor. Whereas Fuwa (2004) finds that the equalizing effect of women's full-time employment is greater in countries with a higher ranking on the economic and political power index and in liberal welfare states, Geist (2005) finds that the equalizing effect of women's work hours is

greater in conservative welfare states (countries ranked the lowest on the power index) than in social democratic and liberal countries. Unfortunately, the use of a relative measure in all of these studies does not indicate if men do more unpaid work in certain contexts, or if women simply do less. Moreover, a focus on share restricts the analyses to couples, obscuring if women's employment affects all men or just married men.

POLICIES INFLUENCING THE GENDERED DIVISION OF LABOR

Three categories of policy—work regulations, work/family policies, and gender equality initiatives—may influence men and women's behaviors by changing the benefits of specialization, altering the terms of bargaining, and affecting the ease of adhering to gender ideologies or norms.

WORK REGULATIONS. Long standard and maximum working hours may encourage specialization by requiring exhaustive hours of the primary breadwinner, putting the breadwinner in an advantaged bargaining position, and making adherence to traditional gender ideology relatively easy. Regulations that decrease standard work time, such as legislation and collective agreements stipulating regular and maximum working hours, hours of operation, overtime compensation, and vacation time, increase the breadwinner's time available for unpaid work (Gornick and Meyers 2003; Jacobs and Gerson 2004). It is an empirical question whether more of this available time is devoted to unpaid work.

WORK/FAMILY POLICIES—CHILD CARE. Publicly funded child care may have countervailing effects on men's unpaid work. On one hand, publicly provided child care serves as a resource and alternative for women, relieving women of some child care responsibility within the relationship and in the event of divorce, as well as facilitating employment. Child care for very young children, as opposed to pre-school for older children, may reduce women's entrenchment in the caregiving role shortly after the birth of a child, and prevent work-skill attrition by reducing the length of absence from the

workplace. On the other hand, although publicly funded child care may challenge attitudes about women's traditional mothering role, it maintains attitudes about men's uninvolved fathering role, making it easier for men to adhere to traditional gender ideology about the parental division of labor and specialization within the home (Windebank 2001).

WORK/FAMILY POLICIES—PARENTAL LEAVE. Parental leaves, used primarily by women, reinforce specialization, and increase the ease of adhering to traditional gender ideologies. Long-term parental or child care leaves, up to three or four years long in some European countries, can disadvantage women by reducing current resources and long-term alternatives. In the short run, the schemes are typically poorly paid (and in some cases unpaid), and in the long run, women can be entrenched in the caregiving role and experience work-skill attrition (Baker 1997; Deven and Moss 2002; Gornick and Meyers 2003; Leira 1998). Unlike child care, long parental leaves facilitate a traditional division of labor for both parents.

GENDER EQUALITY INITIATIVES—PARENTAL LEAVE FOR MEN. Gender-neutral policy reform from a breadwinner-caregiver system to an individual system influences men and women's resources and alternatives, and discontinues state incentives for specialization (Bryson et al. 1994; Daly 2000; Gornick, Meyers, and Ross 1997; Gornick and Meyers 2003; Lewis 1992; Sainsbury 1996, 1999). To the extent that these reforms are accompanied by pro-active policies, such as paternity leave, these reforms also challenge traditional gender ideology. In Scandinavia, attitude change is an explicit goal of paternity leave, seeking to create a lasting impact on father involvement by promoting parenting skills and bonding (Haas 1992).

Based on the above arguments, I hypothesize that men will spend more time on unpaid work in contexts where married women's employment is more common. The various options, however, for responding to the demand for unpaid labor created by women's employment (for example, parental leaves and child care) will help account for the weak relationship between women's labor force participation and men's unpaid work. Thus, similar levels of men's

unpaid work across nations may be attained by very different routes as nations pursue different paths to meeting the demand for unpaid work created by married women's employment. I hypothesize that lengthy national work hours and the availability of lengthy parental leaves decrease, whereas the availability of parental leave to men increases, the time that men spend on unpaid work. I am agnostic as to the effect of policy that shifts child care burdens to the state.

I test these hypotheses using multilevel models that examine the unpaid work behaviors of men in varying circumstances embedded in different national contexts. By situating men within the country and time period in which they live, we can gain a better understanding of men's unpaid work behaviors, and thus explain resistance and change in unpaid work.

RESEARCH STRATEGY

INDIVIDUAL-LEVEL DATA

I use data from the Multinational Time Use Study (MTUS; versions 5.0.1, 5.5.1, and 5.5.2), which is a collection of over 50 harmonized time-use datasets from over 20 countries providing background and time expenditures variables for individuals ages 20 to 59. Time expenditures are measured in a standardized 40-category typology (Gauthier, Gershuny, and Fisher 2002, 2003). I utilize 44 surveys, conducted between 1965 and 2003, from 20 countries. I include all men, not only married men or fathers, to assess variation in the effects of marriage and children and variation across single men. This yields 98,780 respondents. I lose 5.8 percent of the cases ($n = 5,747$) because of missing information. Comparisons of these cases to the full sample show no major distinctions between the omitted group and the rest of the sample. The resulting sample size is 93,033. Table 1 shows the list of countries, years, and sample sizes.

The time-diary format is widely recognized as the most valid and reliable measure of time use, and it is generally robust to variations in data collection, facilitating cross-national comparison (Harvey 1993; Juster 1985; Marini and Shelton 1993; Robinson 1985). Because MTUS is an archive of surveys collected using different methods, there are several issues that may affect comparability, including the diary for-

Table 1. Men's Mean Unpaid Work Time in Minutes per Day

Survey	Core	Non-routine	Child Care	Total Minutes	Number
Austria 1992	23	65	13	101	7,197
Australia 1974	16	66	10	91	512
Australia 1992	41	70	17	127	2,357
Belgium 1965	17	36	8	61	884
Bulgaria 1988	24	90	9	123	7,178
Canada 1971	27	53	13	92	788
Canada 1981	43	53	15	111	913
Canada 1986	32	57	15	104	3,025
Canada 1992	38	70	18	127	2,906
Canada 1998	48	65	21	134	3,341
Czechoslovakia 1965	37	60	21	118	673
Denmark 1987	36	47	11	94	1,087
Finland 1987	38	72	12	121	2,565
France 1966	25	63	13	101	1,324
France 1974	37	42	12	91	2,183
France 1998	45	68	8	120	4,853
Germany (East) 1966	46	61	18	126	623
Germany (West) 1965	12	70	10	92	693
Germany (West) 1991	39	79	15	132	4,342
Hungary 1965	23	72	21	116	949
Hungary 1976	38	47	13	98	2,099
Italy 1989	16	41	11	68	10,582
Netherlands 1975	28	55	13	96	369
Netherlands 1980	32	57	15	104	700
Netherlands 1985	41	65	13	119	1,007
Netherlands 1990	38	55	13	106	898
Netherlands 1995	43	60	13	116	1,087
Netherlands 2000	47	54	17	117	440
Norway 1980	45	66	20	131	1,104
Norway 1990	37	80	23	140	1,037
Norway 2000	64	53	22	139	1,185
Poland 1965	32	45	22	99	1,181
Sweden 1990	56	67	20	143	1,611
Sweden 2000	36	55	18	109	1,358
UK 1974	16	52	6	74	3,905
UK 1987	41	70	11	123	2,277
UK 1995	43	70	23	135	586
UK 2000	55	63	16	135	2,531
US 1965	20	39	12	71	802
US 1975	22	50	11	84	808
US 1985	56	47	11	114	1,415
US 1998	83	41	25	149	381
US 2003	37	70	22	129	6,346
Yugoslavia 1965	23	85	17	125	931
Total	33	63	14	110	93,033

Note: Core includes routine housework, such as cooking, laundry, and housework. Non-routine includes shopping, and odd jobs such as maintenance, paperwork, pet care, gardening, and care of dependent adults. Child care includes direct care and supervision, helping, and playing. UK = United Kingdom; US = United States.

mat, the length of diary time slots, the number of days on which diaries were collected, the level of data collection, the period of collection, and the response rates. I discuss the most con-

sequential issues for this analysis below (remaining issues and more detailed information on the methodology of each survey is shown in Table S1 on the Online Supplement, *ASR* Web

site: <http://www2.asanet.org/journals/asr/2006/toc052.html>).

Comparability issues in the MTUS require researchers to be cautious when examining the low end of the distribution for two reasons. First, the length of time slots in which respondents could report their activities varies across surveys. Half of the surveys have no fixed time slots; three have five-minute; six have 10-minute, 12 have 15-minute, and one has 30-minute intervals. Studies show general comparability among these different formats, but short-duration activities lasting under 10 minutes, such as personal care and child care episodes, are less likely to be captured with long time slots (Harvey 1993). Second, the majority of MTUS surveys are available as one-day diaries, but six (the Netherlands series) are the daily average of week-long diaries. Weekly average data are more likely to contain reports of short-duration activities. For example, a respondent reporting zero minutes of child care on six days, and 10 minutes on one day would have a report of 1.5 minutes. I include a control variable to capture distinctive aspects of the week-long diaries.

Survey means are not substantially influenced by these issues. They are consequential, however, for the number of zero reports, that is, men reporting doing no unpaid work on a day versus men reporting five minutes. In this sample, 20 percent of men report zero minutes of unpaid work with a range of 6 to 46 percent on one-day diaries (the 46 percent comes from the only survey with 30-minute bins), and 1 to 4 percent on weekly dairies. Exploratory analyses reveal that variation in the number of men reporting zero is associated with survey design. Recoding all reports of five minutes or less to zero (prior to aggregating six MTUS time-use categories into total unpaid work) increases the mean percentage of men reporting zero minutes by two percentage points. The increase varies across surveys from zero to five percentage points. I do not suggest that all variation is due to differences in survey design, but I conclude that in this case the differences prevent an accurate analysis of “doers” versus “non-doers.”

A second limitation of the MTUS archive (and cross-national and longitudinal analyses in general) is the necessity of a least-common denominator approach to individual-level modeling. There is a tension between maximizing the

surveys included and maximizing the level of detail in the analyses. In this analysis, I favor maximizing the number of surveys (44 of over 50 surveys) and using sensitivity analyses to examine the robustness of results to richer individual-level data. Even with issues of comparability and least common denominator specifications, however, the MTUS is the best data available to investigate these questions, and when combined with careful attention to comparability issues, sensitivity analyses, and multilevel models, it is an appropriate and powerful dataset.

MEASURES

The dependent variable is men's unpaid work time measured in minutes per day. This measure encompasses six MTUS time-use categories, including time spent on core housework (e.g., cleaning, cooking, laundry), non-routine housework (e.g., everyday purchasing and errands, home and car maintenance, care of adults and pets, gardening), and child care (e.g., direct care and supervision, helping, playing). The measure does not include domestic-related travel, such as transporting children, because of data limitations. Reports in excess of 16 hours per day are top-coded.

In contrast to studies using the ISSP, the dependent variable measures men's level of unpaid work—not men's share vis-à-vis women—because it isolates change and variation in men's behaviors. I also use an inclusive measure of household labor. Theoretically, men's total contributions are consequential. In bargaining, for example, men's contributions to all tasks are part of the exchange. Focusing on only a few tasks may lead to misleading conclusions. A broad measure is also the most conservative approach to studying temporal and cross-national variation because there is more variation in subtypes of unpaid work than in the total (European Communities 2004). Several aspects of the MTUS also make a broad measure preferable. An aggregated measure minimizes variation that may arise from small differences in survey coding, and it is more robust to model assumptions than are subtypes, which have a larger portion of men not performing the activity.

It is important to note the limits of time diary accounts for measuring unpaid work, especial-

Table 2. Means and Standard Deviations for Individual- and National-level Variables

	Mean	Standard Deviation
Dependent Variable		
Unpaid work minutes	109.78	130.08
Individual-level Variables (N = 93,033)		
Married (1 = yes)	.73	.45
Child (1 = yes)	.47	.50
Hours of paid work (on diary day)	5.49	4.42
Not employed (1 = yes)	.13	.34
Low education (1 = yes)	.38	.49
Age	38.34	11.31
Survey-level Variables (N = 44)		
Year	1983.39	12.41
Percentage of married women employed	56.36	17.38
Employed women's weekly paid hours	30.63	6.73
Employed men's weekly paid hours	42.70	4.65
Percentage of children age 0–2 in publicly-funded child care	8.20	10.68
Weeks of parental leave	42.32	47.92
Parental leave available to men (1 = yes)	.43	.50

ly child care. First, the MTUS does not include information on secondary activities. This is most likely to affect reports of child care, as child care is often multitasked or involves passively being “on call” (Budig and Folbre 2004; Sayer 2002). A second limitation is that child care tasks are often recorded as housework, for example, cooking for children; this confounds attempts to analyze separately a comprehensive measure of child care from housework (Budig and Folbre 2004). A third limitation is that most national time-use datasets did not collect time-use information from both partners in a couple. Therefore, direct tests of bargaining models within particular relationships cannot be conducted with these data.

Table 1 presents men's mean unpaid work time for each survey, broken down into three types of unpaid work. The column *total* is the dependent variable in the analyses (summarized in Table 2). Overall, men spend approximately 33 minutes per day on core housework, 63 minutes on non-routine housework and shopping, and 14 minutes on child care, for a mean of 110 minutes of unpaid work per day. The child care mean represents the average time spent on child care across men, including those without children, understating the time that the average father spends with his children. There is substantial variation in total amount of unpaid work performed, ranging from 61 minutes per day in Belgium in 1965 to 149 minutes in the United

States in 1998. There is even greater variation in the subtypes of unpaid work.

Table 2 presents the means and standard deviations for the variables used in the analyses. Measures of independent individual-level variables include factors identified by individual-level theories, including marital status, children, employment status, and educational attainment. *Married* is coded to one if the respondent is married or cohabiting. Cohabitation is not analyzed as a separate marital status because only eight surveys included it as a distinct category. Most post-1970 surveys grouped cohabitation with married. Several surveys, however, did not explicitly mention cohabitation, and it is unknown whether cohabiting respondents identified as married or single. Thus, there is slight variation in the marriage effect because of differences in survey design.¹ *Child* is coded to one if the respondent is living with at least one child under the age of 15. I do not include the ages of children because it is not available in all surveys. Hours of paid work (on diary day) is the

¹ Sensitivity analyses that use the surveys which include a cohabitation variable show that the coefficient for *married* declines from 23 to 21 minutes per day when cohabiting men are in a separate category. Cohabiting men do approximately 16 minutes more of unpaid work per day than do married men. The small difference in the married coefficient reflects the small number of cohabiters.

number of hours spent in paid employment on the diary day, including paid work at home and at a second job, and excluding travel time.² *Not employed* is coded to one if the respondent is not employed. Full- or part-time work is the omitted category. Part-time work is not available in all of the surveys and is as low as 0.6 percent in others. *Low education* is coded to one if the respondent has less than a secondary education. I am unable to use a finer classification with all 44 surveys. I include *age*, measured as the respondent's age in years, as a control variable.

Measures of survey-level variables include year, national characteristics of married women's employment, and national policies on work regulations, work/family conflict, and gender equality. Although each of these areas could be operationalized by a number of variables, the analyses are constrained by degrees of freedom as well as ability to construct comparable measures across time and space.

I include the *year* of the survey as a linear measure. I use a linear measure as opposed to periods because period bins would add a substantial degree of error to the time trend, since each bin would contain varying sets of countries.

I use two measures to gauge married women's employment practices. The *percentage of married women employed* is the percentage of married women reporting employment in the MTUS surveys. *Married, employed women's national work hours* is the mean paid hours reported on the diary day by married, employed women multiplied by seven. I create the national measure from daily reports instead of reports of usual work hours because eight surveys did not gather information on usual work hours. Work regulations are measured by employed men's national work hours. I chose a measure of the outcome of the work regulations and not

specific policy measures because of the close, documented link between regulations and hours worked. Several studies show that lowering standard weekly work hours decreases average working hours by 75 to 100 percent of the amount of the reduction (Gornick and Meyers 2003; OECD 1998). *Employed men's national work hours* is calculated the same way as *married, employed women's national work hours*.

I use two measures of work/family policies and one measure of gender equality reform. These measures are compiled from a variety of sources (for details see Online Supplement, *ASR* Web site). The *percentage of children aged 0–2 in publicly supported child care* measures enrollment rates in publicly subsidized child-care facilities. *Weeks of parental leave* is the sum of maternity, parental, and extended child care leave weeks available at the national level, including paid and unpaid leave, although most of the leaves are paid. The measure gauges the maximum length of time that mothers or parents can be absent from the labor market with job protection and usually some level of wage replacement.

Parental leave available for men is a binary variable indicating whether men are eligible to use a portion of parental leave. This measure does not reflect the extension of individual parental leave rights to fathers pioneered in Scandinavian countries during the 1990s because it is too recent to be reflected in more than two of the surveys. Although the option to use leave does not equal use, it is a significant legislative turning point, marking the first time that men are entitled to any child-related leave.

METHOD

Individual and national-level variables are used in hierarchical linear models (HLM) to predict men's unpaid work time. HLM allows the estimation of one model that contains two or more sub-models representing different levels of analysis. I chose HLM because it addresses dependence between respondents in the same survey, captures unmodeled differences between surveys, and allows intercepts and individual-level coefficients to vary across surveys. I use a two-level model with individuals nested within surveys or country-years. I tested a three-level model with individuals nested within surveys nested within countries to allow for depend-

² Although there is concern that including paid work hours on the diary day is inappropriate for predicting unpaid work on the diary day because of endogeneity (Jenkins and O'Leary 1995), I include this variable because I include a national-level measure of men's work hours. Including the day's paid work time does reflect the adding up of a 24-hour time constraint; The individual-level R^2 increases from 0.07 in models including all other individual-level variables to 0.26 after adding *hours of paid work*.

ence among surveys for the ten countries with repeated observations (see model 2 in Table S2a on the Online Supplement, *ASR* Web site). The three-level model is not an improved fit because the variation across surveys is not a stable feature of countries but changes with survey year. That is, the United States in 2003 is more similar to other nations in the same time period than it is to the United States in 1965.

A linear model of unpaid work using the full sample violates assumptions that the error term is normally distributed with a mean of zero because 20 percent of men report no unpaid work on their diary day. I do not separately analyze men who report zero minutes because there is little reason to believe that these men constitute a distinct group (see "Data" section). I tested several alternate model specifications and found that a model of men's log time restricted to the subset of men reporting more than zero minutes produces a normal distribution of residuals. Three national-level direct effects that are statistically insignificant in the main analyses become significant in this model (see models 3 and 4 in Table S2a on the Online Supplement, *ASR* Web site). The models reported in the main text underestimate the direct national-level effects on men's unpaid work time for "participants," but otherwise the results are consistent across the models.

I weight descriptive statistics to account for both population distribution and daily variation. I use a post-hoc weight for known age-sex-employment distributions multiplied by a day-of-the-week weight for data from MTUS 5.0.1. For data from MTUS 5.5.1 and 5.5.2, I use a post-hoc weight for known age-sex distributions multiplied by a day-of-the-week weight. I do not weight the multivariate analyses; instead I include age, employment status, and day-of-the-week as control variables (Winship and Radbill 1994). The day-of-the-week variables are dummy variables for each day, with Wednesday omitted.

RESULTS

Before turning to specific models, let us begin by examining the time trends documented in Figure 1. The top panel of Figure 1 shows a clear trend of increasing unpaid work time among married, employed fathers (the sample is restricted to married, employed fathers to standardize

for variation in demographic composition). The locally weighted scatterplot smoother (LOWESS) shows an increase from approximately 100 to 150 minutes per day. This amounts to an increase of nearly six hours per week in core housework, non-routine housework, and child care time among married, employed fathers. Fathers' time varies from a low of one hour per day in 1965 in Belgium to a high of three hours per day in 1998 in the United States. Differences across surveys are statistically significant as indicated by analysis of variance (ANOVA).

There is, however, substantial variation in the pace and timing of change across individual countries. France, for example, shows an increase of 20 minutes per day over the period whereas the United States shows an hour. The influence of *year* appears to vary across countries and time.

The bottom panel of Figure 1 shows that the patterns for fathers' relative share of unpaid work are similar to patterns for men's time. The fit line shows that across countries, men's share increased from less than 20 percent to almost 35 percent. Share varies from 13 percent in Belgium in 1965 to 37 percent in the United States in 1998 and Sweden in 2000. An exception to the similarity is that a few surveys that appear low on minutes per day (for example, Denmark in 1987 and Sweden in 2000) increase their ranking on the relative measure.

Figure 1 also shows counterintuitive variation across countries in similar time periods. In the 1960s, the Eastern European countries had much higher levels of men's unpaid work than the observed liberal (English-speaking) and conservative (Western and Southern European) countries. In the mid-1970s, there was little variation among the observed liberal, conservative, and Eastern European countries, with the exception of the United Kingdom. The first observed social democratic nation (Norway in 1980) had higher levels than both a conservative (Netherlands in 1980) and a liberal country (Canada in 1981). In the late-1980s, there was no clear patterning by regime type, and Italy was a clear outlier. In the 1990s, the countries formed more of a pattern, with some clustering in the social democratic and the liberal countries. As of 1990, Norway was a frontrunner in men's unpaid work time, but at the close of the century the United States in 1998 showed

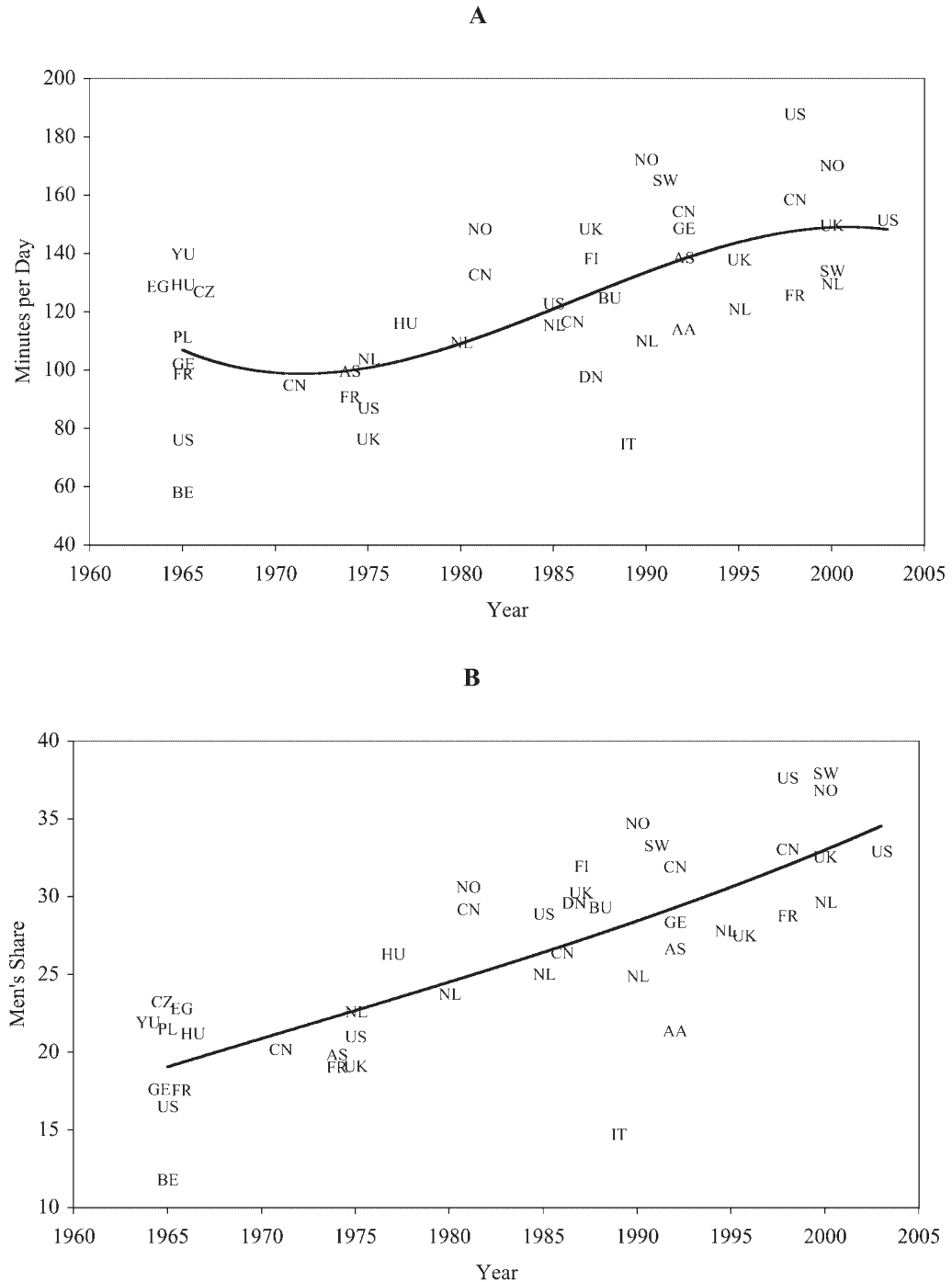


Figure 1. Mean Unpaid Work Time (top) and Share (bottom) among Married, Employed Fathers by Year and Country

Note: Fit lines are calculated using LOWESS (fit to 50 percent of the data points). AA = Austria; AS = Australia; BE = Belgium; BU = Bulgaria; CN = Canada; CZ = Czechoslovakia; DN = Denmark; EG = Germany (East); FI = Finland; FR = France; GE = Germany (West); HU = Hungary; IT = Italy; NL = Netherlands; NO = Norway; SW = Sweden; UK = United Kingdom; US = United States; YU = Yugoslavia.

the highest time. This echoes Baxter's (1997) and Gershuny and Sullivan's (2003) findings of similar divisions of household labor in liberal and social democratic nations. They use this counterintuitive finding to suggest that national-level context is inconsequential. The following results, however, reveal a more complex story.

Table 3 shows the results of the multilevel models. Model 1 includes only a random intercept to gauge variance within and between surveys. Variation between surveys accounts for 3 percent of overall variance (calculated by dividing between-group variance by between-group plus within-group variance), meaning that direct effects from the survey-level to the individual-level could capture up to 3 percent of variation at the individual level. Although there is a lot of variation around the country means, the variation across countries and time is substantively important, especially given our current understanding of men's housework and child care time. For example, R^2 s below 10 percent are standard in individual-level models for men's unpaid work time (e.g., Bianchi et al. 2000; Presser 1994; South and Spitze 1994). Additionally, national-level effects working through individual-level processes (reflected in cross-level interactions) are in the within-group variance.

Model 2 introduces all individual-level variables, with random coefficients allowing the individual-level slopes to vary for each survey. Measures of fit (likelihood ratio test and Akaike information criterion (AIC)) show a significantly improved fit by introducing random coefficients, indicating that the effects of the individual-level variables are not the same across surveys. The introduction of the individual-level variables explains 25 percent of the within-group variance; 18 percent is explained by the inclusion of men's hours of paid work on their diary day. Model 3 adds the national-level variables, reducing the between-group variance by over half (from 514 to 208). Model 4 adds cross-level interactions, and it is preferred as indicated by its lowest AIC among the models. For ease of presentation, I detail the effects in minutes. The main point, however, is that the effects are non-zero.

Beginning with the individual-level effects, married men do more unpaid work than single men. This effect is contrary to the specialization

model and to empirical results for the United States (e.g., South and Spitze 1994). On average, married men spend 24 minutes more per day on unpaid work than do unmarried men. Living with a child is not statistically significant because it is interacted with three national-level variables; I return to the effect of children later in the section. For each additional hour of paid work on their diary day, men do 15 minutes less of unpaid work. When men are not employed they do 19 minutes less of unpaid work per day than do employed men. This is inconsistent with the economic perspectives, but it is consistent with previous empirical work on the United States that finds a negative effect for long-term unemployment and concludes this reflects gender performance (Brines 1993, 1994), although the measure that I employ may include short-term unemployment, early retirement, or even a career break. Low education is not statistically significant. Older men do more housework. Each additional year increases men's unpaid work time by 0.7 minutes per day, a difference of 27 minutes per day between 20- and 59-year-old men.

Turning to the national-level effects, men overall (married and single) spend more time on unpaid work in contexts where married women's employment is more common. For each percentage increase in national levels of married women's employment, men's unpaid work time increases by 0.5 minutes. Comparing the country with the lowest rate of women's employment (19 percent in the Netherlands during 1975) to the highest (85 percent in Bulgaria during 1988), the difference in men's unpaid work time is 30 minutes per day, or 3.5 hours per week. I conducted sensitivity analyses to test if this direct national-level effect is robust for single men. I find that it remains when the sample is restricted to single, childless men (see model 5 in Table S2a on the Online Supplement, *ASR* Web site). I also conducted sensitivity analyses to test if this effect is robust to the inclusion of spouse's employment at the individual level; I find that it is (see Table S2b on the Online Supplement, *ASR* Web site). Because levels of women's employment affect all men, there is clear evidence that the influence of women's employment goes beyond the individual negotiations of husbands and wives. As suggested by a gender-sensitive approach, increased levels of women's employment are

Table 3. Multi-Level Models Predicting Men's Unpaid Work Time (Minutes per Day)

	Model 1		Model 2		Model 3		Model 4	
	β	SE	β	SE	β	SE	β	SE
Intercept	115.18	3.47***	142.82	4.29***	160.59	348.88	28.66	352.52
Individual-level Variables								
Married (1 = yes)			23.62	1.65***	23.66	1.66***	23.72	1.68***
Child (1 = yes)			30.32	2.39***	30.55	2.35***	5.89	10.02
Hours of paid work (on diary day)			-15.01	.34***	-15.05	.34***	-15.07	.34***
Not employed (1 = yes)			-18.50	3.17***	-18.64	3.20***	-18.92	3.23***
Low education (1 = yes)			3.31	2.26	3.52	2.28	3.56	2.28
Age			.70	.07***	.69	.07***	.69	.07***
National-level Variables								
Year					-.03	.17	-.02	.17
Percentage of married women employed					.45	.12***	.45	.12***
Employed women's weekly paid hours					.45	.41	.42	.41
Employed men's weekly paid hours					.16	.60	.28	.61
Percentage of children age 0-2 in child care					-.10	.16	-.12	.16
Weeks of parental leave					-.02	.02	-.02	.03
Parental leave available to men (1 = yes)					3.86	3.83	4.98	3.90
Cross-level Interactions								
Child $\times$ Employed women's paid hours							.64	.31*
Child $\times$ Weeks of parental leave							-.08	.04*
Child $\times$ Parental leave available to men							19.26	4.46***
Variance Components ^a								
Between-group variance	514.28		436.95		208.40		208.81	
Within-group variance	17125.57		12856.91		12856.88		12832.88	
R ²			.25		.26		.26	
-2 log likelihood	-585549.90		-571567.20		-571559.60		-571552.10	
	1171106.00		1143220.00		1143219.00		1143212.00	

Notes: N = 93, 033. The models include dummy variables to control for the day of the week the diary was collected. AIC = Akaike's information criterion; SE = standard error.
^a The between-group and within-group variances are generated from the random intercept (not random coefficients) models, and are used to calculate the R²s because the calculation of these values in a random coefficients model is prohibitively complex. The values tend to be close to the values from the random coefficients models (Snijders and Bosker 1999:105).
* $p < .05$; ** $p < .01$; *** $p < .001$ (two-tailed tests)

associated with an across-the-board change in men's domestic work.

Women's labor force participation is the only statistically significant direct effect at the national level. With a sample of 44, however, it should be remembered that the absence of a statistically significant effect does not mean that there is no effect, only that we cannot reject the null hypothesis that the effect may be zero.³

Surprisingly, year is not a statistically significant predictor of men's unpaid work time. There is a trend over time, as shown in Figure 1, but the multilevel models show that the trend is explained by individual- and national-level variables. When *year* is the only variable included in the model it is statistically significant, but it becomes insignificant when I add individual-level variables (whose means and effects may vary across time as a result of survey-level conditions). With a restricted dataset including only countries observed at multiple time points (results not shown), the time trend is significant after the introduction of individual-level variables, but becomes insignificant when I add the national-level measure of women's labor force participation.

Turning to the cross-level interactions, the effect of living with a child on men's unpaid work time is contingent on national employment practices and policies. The introduction of interaction terms in model 4 between child and married women's national work hours, length of available parental leave, and the availability of parental leave for men reduces the positive effect of 31 minutes per day (in models 2 and 3) to 6 minutes (in nations where there is no parental leave and married women's national work hours are zero). For men living with children, each hour increase in married, employed women's national work week increases men's unpaid work time by 0.6 minutes per day. Comparing the country with the lowest mean work hours for women (16 hours in the

Netherlands during 1975) to the highest (44 hours in Hungary in 1965), men with children in the highest observed case do 18 minutes more of unpaid work per day (or 2.1 hours per week) than men in the lowest case. Men with children in the mean case (31 hours of paid work, e.g., in the United States during 1985 or France during 1974) do 20 minutes more of unpaid work per day (or 2.3 hours per week) than men not living with children. This effect is not restricted to fathers married to employed women; it applies to all fathers, again suggesting a general change father's unpaid work associated with women's increased employment.

The effect of living with a child on men's unpaid work time is also dependent on national parental leave provisions. Each additional week of available parental leave decreases men's unpaid work time by 0.08 minutes. In the average case of 42 weeks of available leave, this amounts to only three minutes less per day than nations offering no parental leave (such as the United States and Australia into the early 1990s). When considering countries that offer three years of parental leave (such as Finland in 1987), however, this amounts to 13 minutes less per day, or 1.5 hours per week. I suspect that lengthy parental leaves reinforce specialization and increase the ease of adhering to traditional gender ideologies about parenthood. Where men are eligible to take parental leave, however, men living with children do 19 minutes more of unpaid work per day, or 2.2 hours per week, than do men living with children in countries not offering parental leave for men or men not living with children. Extending eligibility for parental leave to fathers decreases state support of specialization, and I suspect that it increases the difficulty of adhering to traditional gender ideology.

Figure 2 displays the effect of married, employed women's national work hours on fathers' time in four different policy contexts (42 weeks of parental leave available versus 162 weeks, and men eligible for parental leave versus ineligible), holding all other variables at the mean. For comparison I show predicted values for men without children. Fathers do the most when married, employed women work full-time hours, and when parental leave is short and available to men. In contexts where married, employed women work few hours and men are ineligible to use parental leave, fathers are predicted to do the same amount of unpaid work

³ Additional analyses (results not shown) show that there are additional direct effects when predicting subtypes of unpaid work, suggesting that these factors may be important for task segregation. As mentioned in the "Methods" section, there are additional direct effects among men reporting unpaid work on their diary day (see models 3 and 4, Table S2a on the Online Supplement, *ASR* Web site).

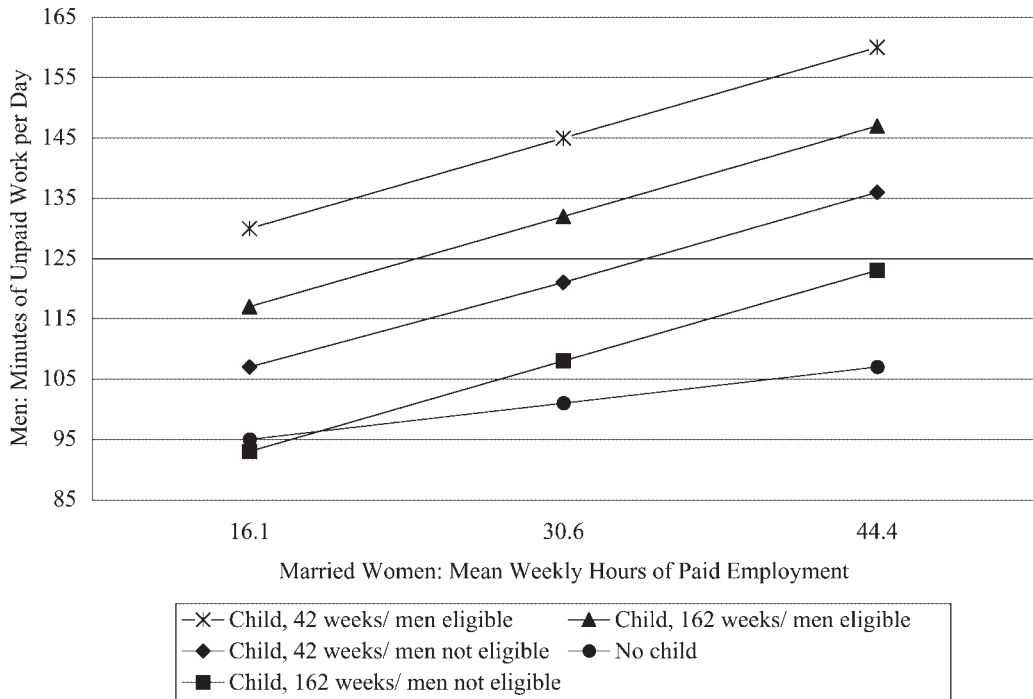


Figure 2. Men's Predicted Unpaid Work Time by Parental Status, Employed Women's National Work Hours, Weeks of Parental Leave Available, and Eligibility of Men for Parental Leave

as men without children. In sum, women's national employment practices and national policies are key determinants of fathers' unpaid work time at the individual-level.

DISCUSSION

Contemporary change (or lack thereof) in men's unpaid work behaviors presents an interesting puzzle. Researchers have observed that at the individual level, we have had little success in explaining men's unpaid work behaviors. Men have not responded to women's increased employment as we may have predicted, and there are similar distributions of unpaid work across nations with diverse national employment practices and policy configurations. In this study, I attempt to increase our understanding of men's behaviors by placing men within the country and time period in which they are embedded, and unpacking welfare state regimes into specific policies and practices. Before addressing the theoretical implications of this study, I comment on how the results can help clarify previous puzzles in the literature.

Is the revolution stalled or is there convergence? My findings suggest that both conclusions are too strong. On one hand, there is a clear increase in men's unpaid work over time. Among married, employed fathers the mean time spent on unpaid work increased nearly six hours per week from 1965 to 2003. Whether six hour per week is substantial is subjective, but I argue that a mean increase of this magnitude in less than 40 years does signal important shifts in gendered patterns of behavior. On the other hand, a conclusion of convergence requires that we extrapolate beyond the data (Jacobs 2002). There is no country in the analyses where men's share exceeds 37 percent. Multilevel results suggest that we cannot assume further increases based solely on the progression of time. Instead, further increases are likely to occur if women's labor force involvement continues to increase, especially if it is coupled with policies that are supportive of men's family work.

Why have men not responded to women's employment as we may have predicted? The results show that one part of the answer is that policies created in response to women's rising employment, specifically lengthy parental

leaves, decrease the gain in fathers' unpaid work time associated with women's increased employment and work hours. As suggested in previous research, parental leaves decrease fathers' time by reinforcing women's role as caregiver during a critical period of change in the division of household labor (Baker 1997; Deven and Moss 2002; Gornick and Meyers 2003; Leira 1998). Another part of the equation is that women's employment remains heavily part-time in several nations, keeping demands off fathers.

Why do we observe similar distributions of unpaid work across diverse countries? Previous findings of similar levels of men's unpaid work do not indicate that context is irrelevant (e.g., Baxter 1997; Gershuny and Sullivan 2003), but that various influences combine to shape men's behaviors. For example, the model predicts that fathers in Norway do a similar amount of unpaid work or less than fathers in the United States because although women's labor force participation rates are similar in both countries, employed women in the United States work longer hours. Although Norway enacted a progressive paternity leave program in 1993, its extended parental leave enacted in 1998 is predicted to dampen this progressive reform. This points to an important methodological implication; a reliance on typologies may conflate disparate national characteristics and policies, lead to faulty conclusions, and obscure what aspects of context matter most.

Theoretically, the results lend some support to a welfare state perspective whereby national orientations to gender and work influence men's involvement in unpaid work. There is a direct effect of women's labor force participation on men's unpaid work that affects all men—men married to employed women, men married to non-employed women, and even single men. In contexts where women are more involved in the public sphere, men are more involved in the private sphere, not necessarily because of household bargaining or other household-level processes, but because of societal shifts in gendered behavior. A methodological implication of this finding is that researchers should expand inquiry beyond couples. If we focus only on couples, we may misattribute changes among all men to changes among married men and find false evidence of household processes, such as bargaining.

What is particularly interesting about a general change among all men is that it suggests a different view of gender relations than argued in some recent cross-national work focused solely on power, bargaining, or divorce threat. These studies assume that all men and women want to avoid doing unpaid work, and that women use national and individual power to get out of unpaid work and to coerce men into doing more (Breen and Cooke 2005; Fuwa 2004; Iversen and Rosenbluth 2006). This perspective oversimplifies family work and is inconsistent with evidence of some women's maternal gate-keeping and general reluctance to give up control in the home (Allen and Hawkins 1999; Thompson and Walker 1989), of men's agitation for greater father involvement and paternal rights (Gavanas 2002) (Gavanas 2002), and of findings of increases in men's unpaid work time across all men (Bianchi et al. 2000). In contrast, an institutional approach derived from a welfare state perspective provides a more nuanced view of national context as it relates to gender dynamics, suggesting a host of national factors that may influence men's and women's work arrangements, giving us insight into the complexity of gender relations at individual, household, and national levels.

Cross-level interactions reflect this complexity and are suggestive of an integrative framework. By focusing on the variation in the effect of living with children, we observe that the effect is contingent upon national context—women's national work hours, the length of available parental leave, and the availability of parental leave for men. A methodological implication is that researchers should not assume that the effects of basic demographic characteristics are stable across time and space because they vary as a function of contextual factors.

This perspective has the power to explain why some individual-level hypotheses are supported in some contexts but not in others. For instance, researchers have consistently reported that children are a "gendered time constraint," that is, the effect of children on women's time is larger than the effect on men's time (Bianchi et al. 2000; Shelton 1992). This analysis documents that part of what genders the effect of children is national context. Overall, the findings add to studies of individual-level experiences and meso-level work environments that suggest the importance of context for men's

unpaid work behaviors, particularly for fathers' (Gerson 1993; Haas 1992; Risman 1998).

The results have implications for contemporary policy debates. Researchers and policy-makers have identified increasing men's family time as a strategy for increasing gender equality, child well-being, and fertility, and decreasing work/family conflict and the care deficit (European Communities Childcare Network 1994; Gornick and Meyers 2003; Hochschild 1995; Knijn and Kremer 1997; Marsiglio et al. 2000; McDonald 2000) (Gornick and Meyers 2003; Hochschild 1995; Knijn and Kremer 1997; Marsiglio et al. 2000; McDonald 2000). The results show that policies that free women from work for child care—for example, parental leaves—depress men's contributions in the home, and that extending parental leave to men increases men's contributions. Although there is reason to suspect that publicly supported child care may decrease men's contributions in the home (Windebank 2001), the results do not support this. In fact, Windebank's observed discrepancy between gendered divisions of labor in France and the United Kingdom may be better attributed to lengthy parental leaves in France during the mid-1990s (162 weeks compared to the UK's 18 weeks) than to the higher levels of publicly supported child care.

The results are generalizable to the unpaid work behaviors of men ages 20 to 59 in Europe, North America, and Australia during the latter half of 20th century. The models more accurately explain the dynamics in some countries than in others. Italy in 1989 is a clear outlier. Unfortunately, Italy is the only Southern European state available for analysis. Thus, it is impossible to conclude if Southern European states show a distinct pattern or if Italy alone is distinct.

Central limitations of the present study offer prospects for future research. An integrative approach to household-level phenomenon needs to be examined with household-level data. Unfortunately only a few countries have conducted household-level time-use studies, precluding detailed examination of household-level processes, such as bargaining. Further data limitations, inherent in most cross-national and time-use datasets, also preclude me from including several individual-level variables, such as gender ideology. Thus, it is not possible to conclude

exactly how national-level context influences individual- and household-level processes.

A fully integrative approach should also incorporate information on meso-level conditions, namely the workplace. Although national policy is the key site in most European nations, workplaces are important sites for the implementation of some policies, mediating the connection between nations and households. In the United States, employers are the key provider of work-family policies, although these employer-provided benefits pale in comparison to most European policies. As new data become available, there will be significant opportunities to further explore contemporary change in household labor. Data collection efforts should focus on household-level data and a variety of measures of household labor, including time and share in meaningful task categories.

Comparative research on men's unpaid work helps shed light on the persistence of gender inequality in the home as well as the role that states play in this arrangement. It shifts the emphasis from identifying which individual men perform more unpaid work to identifying which policies and practices/structures hinder or facilitate men's unpaid work. An institutional approach derived from a welfare state perspective has the power to provide a nuanced view of national context as it relates to gender dynamics, providing an explanation of both resistance to and prospects for change in a new era of men's family involvement.

Jennifer L. Hook is Assistant Professor of Sociology at the Pennsylvania State University. Her research focuses on comparative aspects of gender, family, and demographic sociology. Her current projects investigate the relationship between national-level conditions and the processes that gender the distribution of paid and unpaid work. Her recent publications include "Reconsidering the Division of Household Labor: Incorporating Volunteer Work and Informal Support" published in the Journal of Marriage and Family (February 2004), and "The Structure of Women's Employment in Comparative Perspective" published in Social Forces (December 2005) (coauthored with Becky Pettit).

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